

Individualism and Collectivism: Cross-Cultural Perspectives on Self-Ingroup Relationships

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The individualism and collectivism constructs are theoretically analyzed and linked to certain hypothesized consequences (social behaviors, health indices). Study 1 explores the meaning of these constructs within culture (in the United States), identifying the individual-differences variable, idiocentrism versus allocentrism, that corresponds to the constructs. Factor analyses of responses to items related to the constructs suggest that U.S. individualism is reflected in (a) Self-Reliance With Competition, (b) Low Concern for Ingroups, and (c) Distance from Ingroups. A higher order factor analysis suggests that Subordination of Ingroup Goals to Personal Goals may be the most important aspect of U.S. individualism. Study 2 probes the limits of the constructs with data from two collectivist samples (Japan and Puerto Rico) and one individualist sample (Illinois) of students. It is shown that responses depend on who the other is (i.e., which ingroup), the context, and the kind of social behavior (e.g., feel similar to other, attentive to the views of others). Study 3 replicates previous work in Puerto Rico indicating that allocentric persons perceive that they receive more and a better quality of social support than do idiocentric persons, while the latter report being more lonely than the former. Several themes, such as self-reliance, achievement, and competition, have different meanings in the two kinds of societies, and detailed examinations of the factor patterns show how such themes vary across cultures.

This article contains two parts. Part 1 presents a theoretical analysis of the constructs of individualism (e.g., de Tocqueville, 1946) and collectivism, including a discussion of the probable antecedents and consequents of the emphases on these values in different cultures. Part 2 presents three studies. The first study, based on U.S. data, provides attitude items that can be used to measure the individual-differences dimension allocentrism versus idiocentrism. Allocentrism versus idiocentrism is a within-culture variable that corresponds to collectivism versus individualism at the cultural level. The second study tests the limits of the constructs, with data from Japan, Puerto Rico, and Illinois. The third study replicates previously obtained (in Illinois) findings with data from Puerto Rico that allocentric persons report receiving more social support and a better quality of social support, and idiocentric persons report higher levels of loneliness.

Theoretical Analysis

Culture is a fuzzy construct. If we are to understand the way culture relates to social psychological phenomena, we must analyze it by determining dimensions of cultural variation. One of the most promising such dimensions is individualism-collectivism.

Cultures differ in the extent to which cooperation, competition, or individualism (Mead, 1967) are emphasized. At the psychological level, these differences are reflected in a personality dimension labeled *allocentrism versus idiocentrism*.

Reliable ways to measure allocentrism in the United States were developed by Triandis, Leung, Villareal, and Clack (1985). Allocentrism was found to be positively correlated with social support (both quantity and satisfaction with it) and with low levels of alienation and anomie; idiocentrism was found to be positively correlated with (a) emphasis on achievement and (b) perceived loneliness.

Allocentrism-idiocentrism reflects at the psychological level the dimension that has been labeled *collectivism versus individualism* (Hofstede, 1980), *cooperation versus individualism* (Mead, 1967), or *collaterality versus individualism* (Kluckhohn & Strodtbeck, 1961) at the cultural level. As Deutsch (1949, 1962) has conceptualized the relationship of individuals and groups, it can take three forms: Individual goals can be positively (cooperation), negatively (competition), or not (individualism) correlated with group goals.

Hofstede (1980) found the dimension of individualism in cross-cultural work value data. This dimension and Power Dis-

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tance, with which it correlated $-.67$, accounted for most of the variance in an ecological factor analysis of value data (in which the number of cultures is the N of the correlation coefficients). Mezei (1974), in an individual factor analysis, found that individualism was the most important dimension in his factor analysis of the Kluckhohn and Strodtbeck (1961) values.

Given the theoretical significance of studying the relationship of person to group across cultures, these empirical findings favor the decision to study this dimension intensively. The psychological correlates of individualism–collectivism have as yet been studied very little. Yet it is possible to develop attitude items that tap the various orientations (Hui, 1984; Triandis et al., 1985).

The distinction between the cultural (collectivist vs. individualist) and psychological (allocentric vs. idiocentric) levels and their corresponding terminology needs to be emphasized. Hofstede (1980) has shown that ecological factor analyses (in which the number of observations is based on the number of *cultures*) give different results from within-culture analyses (in which the number of observations are the number of *people* responding to a questionnaire). Yet it is possible to link the two analyses, as was done by Triandis et al. (1986). It avoids confusion if we use the terms *collectivist* cultures and *allocentric* individuals. This also allows us to determine if allocentric persons in individualist cultures relate to groups differently than do allocentric individuals in collectivist cultures.

An essential attribute of collectivist cultures is that individuals may be induced to subordinate their personal goals to the goals of some collective, which is usually a stable ingroup (e.g., family, band, tribe), and much of the behavior of individuals may concern goals that are consistent with the goals of this ingroup. In individualist cultures there are many more ingroups¹ (e.g., family, coworkers, clubs, motorcycle gangs), and much of the behavior of individuals concerns goals that are consistent with various ingroups. In collectivist cultures the relationship of the individual to the ingroup tends to be stable, and even when the ingroup makes highly costly demands the individual stays with it. On the other hand, in individualist cultures people often drop those ingroups that are inconveniently demanding and form new ingroups. As a result, in individualist cultures demands by ingroups on individual contributions are highly segmented, requiring contributions only at a certain time and place or of a certain kind; in contrast, in collectivist cultures the demands are diffuse.

Cultural complexity, as indexed by Murdock and Provost (1973), is in all probability related to individualism–collectivism by a U-shaped function. That is, in extremely simple societies (e.g., the Mbuti Pygmies) there is proto-individualism, in which the individual is closely related to very few others and has considerable freedom to act independently of others. At higher levels of complexity (e.g., the Romans, Aztecs, Chinese) collectivism is very high. The individual relates to a few very important ingroups, organized in concentric circles (e.g., nuclear family, extended family, clan, city, state). Although the control exerted by these ingroups diminishes as we move from the nuclear family to the state, it is generally more pronounced than the control in even more complex cultures. In extremely complex cultures (e.g., modern industrial cultures), the number of ingroups that one can have is much greater than in the collectivist

cultures. Modern cultures are neoindividualistic, characterized by both independence from ingroups and distance (emotional detachment) from ingroups. Thus, one is able to “do one’s own thing” and get away with it. A problem for one’s ingroup may not have much consequence for the individual.

Cultural elements change slowly. In societies with long traditions the collectivism elements may persist although the societies have become very complex (e.g., Japan). However, one ought to observe shifts toward individualism as complexity increases. The increase in voluntary organizations in the last 20 years in Japan (Asai’s observations) can be seen as an index of this kind of shift.

Important antecedents of individualism, in addition to cultural complexity, are (a) having a frontier, (b) having substantial numbers of immigrants, and (c) having rapid social and geographical mobility, all of which tend to make the control of ingroups less certain. The high levels of individualism observed by Hofstede (1980) in the United States, Australia, and Canada are consistent with this point.

It is likely that Gross National Product (GNP) is both an antecedent and a consequent of individualism. Affluence implies the ability to “do one’s own thing,” but “doing one’s own thing” implies more creativity for the society, hence more innovation and more economic development.

A covariate of cultural complexity is resource availability. In societies that are very simple resources are very limited; in more complex societies resources are more available. In modern, industrial societies we find resource abundance in the form of widely available manufactured goods and foods that must be destroyed because they cannot be sold.

It follows from this analysis that individuals do not feel as attached to any ingroup when there are numerous ingroups to which they can be attached, and when each ingroup provides only a small portion of their material and emotional security. As a result, social behavior is likely to be very different in proto-individualist, collectivist, and neoindividualist societies.

Conformity may occur more frequently in collectivist cultures, when the norms are clear, and sanctions are likely to be imposed for deviant behavior. However, when the norms are unclear, and sanctions are unlikely to be imposed, we might observe anticonformity. This explains Frager’s (1970) findings that Japanese subjects conformed less (25%) than did U.S. subjects (usually 33%) in Asch-type conformity experimental settings and showed unusually high levels (36%) of anticonformity (giving the wrong response during those trials when the majority gave the correct response). Obviously, there are few norms or sanctions in the social psychological laboratory.

As Foa and Foa (1974) have observed, the resources that are exchanged in modern cultures tend to be universalistic, that is, money, information, and goods. In traditional cultures, one finds higher rates of exchange of particularistic resources, that is, love, status, and service. As cultures become complex and individualistic they shift from the time-consuming particularistic to universalistic exchanges. For example, parents give money more frequently and love and individual attention to children’s

¹ Defined as a set of people with whom one shares some attribute that contributes to one’s positive social identity.

needs less frequently. If we measured the frequencies of social exchanges in the two types of cultures we should observe more particularistic exchanges in the collectivist and more universalistic exchanges in the individualistic cultures. This is a testable hypothesis.

In collectivist cultures, cooperation is high in ingroups but is unlikely when the other person belongs to an outgroup. The same phenomenon can be observed in individualist cultures, but the difference between ingroup and outgroup is attenuated (Triandis, 1972). People in individualist cultures are very good at meeting outsiders, forming new ingroups, and getting along with new people.

Social relations with unequal power are more common in collectivist cultures than in individualist cultures. In collectivist cultures the most important relationships are vertical (e.g., parent-child), whereas in individualist cultures the most important relationships are horizontal (e.g., spouse-spouse, friend-friend). In collectivist cultures, interdependence is maximized between parent and child by frequent guidance, consultation, socializing in which the children are included, and penetration into the child's private life. In individualist cultures, there is emotional detachment, independence, and privacy for the child. Marriage between individuals from the two kinds of cultures is likely to lead to difficulties, particularly if a collectivist male marries an individualist female. She is then likely to expect that the spouse-spouse bond will be stronger than the parent-son bond, while he is likely to expect the mother-son (in the Indo-European collectivist cultures) or father-son (in the East Asian collectivist cultures) to be stronger than the spouse-spouse bond. Who gets priority in family relationships is always a delicate issue, and it gets to be very difficult to resolve when unstated assumptions about the priority of particular bonds are contradictory.

The emphasis is usually on people more than on task in collectivist cultures, and the reverse happens in individualist cultures: For example, when meeting a friend on the way to work persons in a collectivist culture will stop and chat whereas the persons in an individualist culture might excuse themselves or avoid the meeting. Relationships with ingroups are intensive and interdependence is high in collectivist cultures, whereas there is more detachment, distance, and self-reliance in individualist cultures. Social relations tend to be more enduring and involuntary and to occur in large groups in collectivist cultures; they are more temporary and voluntary and occur in small groups in individualist cultures. In collectivist cultures, one attempts to "paper over" conflict within the ingroup, which often requires illicit behaviors that are hidden from ingroup members; in individualist cultures, one is more likely to bring conflict to the open, so there are more lawsuits.

It is clear that the inducement of individuals to adopt group goals results in advantages to the group or to an authority within the group. However, the social exchange appears fair to some individuals because such groups often provide social support, resources, and security. In individualistic cultures, the individual has many rights and few obligations in relation to ingroups, but ingroups also provide less social support, resources, or security to individuals.

These general patterns, however, are modified by individual differences in the extent that individuals accept ingroup norms.

Allocentric persons in collectivist cultures feel positive about accepting ingroup norms and do not even raise the question of whether or not to accept them. Acceptance of ingroup norms is an unstated assumption of the culture that they do not challenge. However, idiocentric persons in collectivist cultures feel ambivalent and even bitter about acceptance of ingroup norms. They wonder if this or that norm is necessary, or if they should comply with it. Thus, they challenge the idea that they should comply. Nevertheless, since most people in such cultures comply, they tend to comply too. Consequently, whereas allocentric persons in collectivist cultures may experience consistency among the behavioral, affective, and cognitive elements of their social behavior, idiocentrics may experience discrepancies: The behavioral elements may comply to the norms, but the affective and cognitive elements usually question the norm.

In individualist cultures parallel phenomena may take place. Idiocentric persons in individualist cultures find it completely natural to "do their own thing" and to disregard the needs of communities, family, or work group. But allocentric persons feel concerned about their communities and ingroups. The former will show consistency of the behavioral, affective, and cognitive elements of their social behavior, which is governed mostly by hedonistic and social exchange concerns; the latter may also be consistent, but their behavior may be governed by ingroup norms.

J. B. P. Sinha (personal communication, August 25, 1986) believes that idiocentric persons in collectivist cultures yield to group norms less than allocentric persons in individualist cultures. This is a testable hypothesis that has been supported (Bontempo, Lobel, & Triandis, in press).

People in individualistic cultures often have greater skills in entering and leaving new social groups. They make "friends" easily, but by "friends" they mean nonintimate acquaintances. People in collectivist cultures have fewer skills in making new "friends," but "friend" in their case implies a life-long intimate relationship, with many obligations. So the quality of the friendships is different. This difference in quality may complicate our understanding of the construct of collectivism, since people in individualistic cultures are likely to *appear* more sociable, while intimacy is not a readily observable attribute. In developing measurements of the construct, it is important to make such distinctions.

In collectivist cultures, the individual has few ingroups (often just one) and frequently everybody else is in the outgroup (Triandis & Vassiliou, 1972); behavior toward outgroups can be perceived as highly individualistic. In individualist cultures, the individual has many ingroups and those who are not ingroup members are not necessarily in the outgroup; behavior is often conformist in order to be accepted by ingroups. These are complex patterns of social behavior that require the distinction between ingroup behavior (conformity) and outgroup behavior (do whatever you can get away with) for collectivists. Triandis and Vassiliou emphasized that behavior toward ingroup and outgroup members is very different in traditional Greek culture, while it is much less different in the United States. In the collectivist cultures the ingroup's influence on behavior is broad, profound, and diffuse; in the individualist it is narrow, superficial, and specific.

The sharp difference in behavior toward ingroups and out-

groups in collectivist cultures, which does not occur as sharply in individualistic cultures, can confuse observers who are not examining these cultures with the ingroup-outgroup distinction in mind. In collectivist cultures people share and show harmony within ingroups, but the total society may be characterized by much disharmony and nonsharing, because so many interpersonal relationships are individual-outgroup relationships. For instance, if the ingroup is defined as "family and friends and other people concerned with my welfare" (Triandis, 1972), then most relationships with merchants, policemen, government bureaucrats, and so on are outgroup relationships. In contrast, in individualistic cultures people define the ingroup (see Triandis, 1972) as "people who are like me in social class, race, beliefs, attitudes, and values." That is a huge group. Most interpersonal behavior occurs within that huge group.

Furthermore, the definition of the ingroup, in collectivist cultures, depends to some extent on the situation. While "family and friends" is the main definition, fellow villagers, political allies, or the country as a whole (in time of war) become the relevant ingroups for particular behaviors. In Japan, for employees of Nissan Motors "we" refers to Nissan and "they" to Toyota, but in discussions of the share of the market versus American automakers they are both "we." As Zavalloni (1980) has argued, each ingroup can have a "we" and "they" aspect, since people are perfectly capable of differentially describing their ingroup; for example, French subjects gave different characterizations to "they the French" and "we the French".

All these statements are moderated by the situation; Hui (1984) found that U.S. and Hong Kong subjects behaved as expected in collectivist cultures only with respect to specific others (e.g., their parents, friends, neighbors, or coworkers). In other words, a person may be idiocentric in relation to specific ingroups, and allocentric in relation to other ingroups.

Collectivist societies also differ on which element of collectivism they emphasize. For example, the cultures of the Far East emphasize ingroup harmony. One must present oneself to others as modestly as possible and avoid conflict with others at all costs. Confrontation is highly undesirable. Thus, we find conflict resolution taking a different form (Leung, 1987) and fewer lawyers per capita in such societies than in individualistic cultures. In the collectivist cultures of the Mediterranean and Latin America, the central value is respect/dignity. Preservation of one's honor is a supreme value. An ingroup member is honorable and dependable, does what the ingroup expects, and is unlikely to "betray" the ingroup.

Shame and other mechanisms of social control (e.g., religious beliefs) are used more widely in collectivist cultures than are mechanisms of internal control, such as guilt. The latter are more frequently used in individualist cultures. However, in all cultures both types of mechanisms are used; it is simply a matter of degree of use.

In some of our exploratory studies, the *behavior* under study was a key element in determining whether the subject would do "his own thing" or conform to the ingroup demands. For example, American college students were more idiocentric with respect to a choice of religion than with respect to a choice of spouse. Thus, it may be that the best way to conceptualize these constructs is to think of *profiles* of goals of individuals and spe-

cific others that are positively or negatively intercorrelated or uncorrelated.

This theoretical perspective is consistent with the one developed by Greenwald (1982). Greenwald's ego-task analysis integrated work on ego-involvement and self-awareness. On the basis of this work, Breckler and Greenwald (1986) identified tasks that had three kinds of goals: individual, public, and collective. These corresponded to three kinds of self-esteem that are a function of reaching such goals. The *private self* corresponds to self-evaluation based on reaching personal goals, the *public self* is sensitive to the evaluations of significant others, and the *communal self* corresponds to evaluations by a reference group (ingroup). Reaching internal standards is an essential facet of McClelland's (1961) conception of need for achievement. Snyder's (1974) self-monitoring indicates the extent public as opposed to private standards are used. Sherif and Cantril (1947) defined ego-involvement as concern with the goals of reference groups. Thus, McClelland focuses on the private, Snyder on the public, and Sherif and Cantril on the collective self. In the present discussion we examine primarily the contrast between the private and collective self.

Studies of the subjective culture (Triandis, 1972, 1980) of various cultural groups show differences in collectivism. Thus, the cultures of southern Italy (Banfield, 1958), traditional Greece (Triandis & Vassiliou, 1972), and rural China (Hsu, 1971, 1981, 1983) tend to be collectivist, while northern and western European and North American cultures tend to be individualistic (Inkeles, 1983; Stewart, 1966). Some aspects of collectivism may inhibit economic development (Adelman & Morris, 1967; Triandis, 1984); however, these aspects may be related to low levels of social pathology, so that the evaluation of whether collectivism is functional for a culture is not possible, at this time.

There is a large literature that can be organized around the individualism-collectivism dimension. Studies of morality (Shweder, 1982), religion (Bakan, 1966), work related values (Hofstede, 1980), the concept of limited good (Foster, 1965), broad value orientations (Kluckhohn & Strodtbeck, 1961), ecology and child-rearing patterns (Barry, Child, & Bacon, 1959; Berry, 1979), cognitive differentiation (Witkin & Berry, 1975), economic development (Adelman & Morris, 1967), modernity (Inkeles & Smith, 1974; Berger, Berger, & Kellner, 1973), the structure of constitutions of various states (Massimini & Calegari, 1979), and analyses of cultural patterns (Hsu, 1981) have used variations of this dimension. Individualism is a relatively stable attribute of Americans (Inkeles, 1983). It has been defended (Riesman, 1966; Waterman, 1981) and criticized (Hogan, 1975; Lasch, 1978; Rakoff, 1978; Sampson, 1977; Smith, 1978). Various attempts have been made to define patterns that are both individualistic and collectivist (Kanfer, 1979; Rotenberg, 1977). This literature has been reviewed by Triandis (1987).

Individualism has been found to be associated with high levels of GNP (Adelman & Morris, 1967; Cobb, 1976; Hofstede, 1980), but extreme individualism may be linked to several forms of social pathology, such as high crime, suicide, divorce, child abuse, emotional stress, and physical and mental illness rates (Cobb, 1976; Naroll, 1983). Allocentric persons tend to have happy marriages (Antill, 1983) and are more likely to receive social support that acts as a buffer of life change stresses

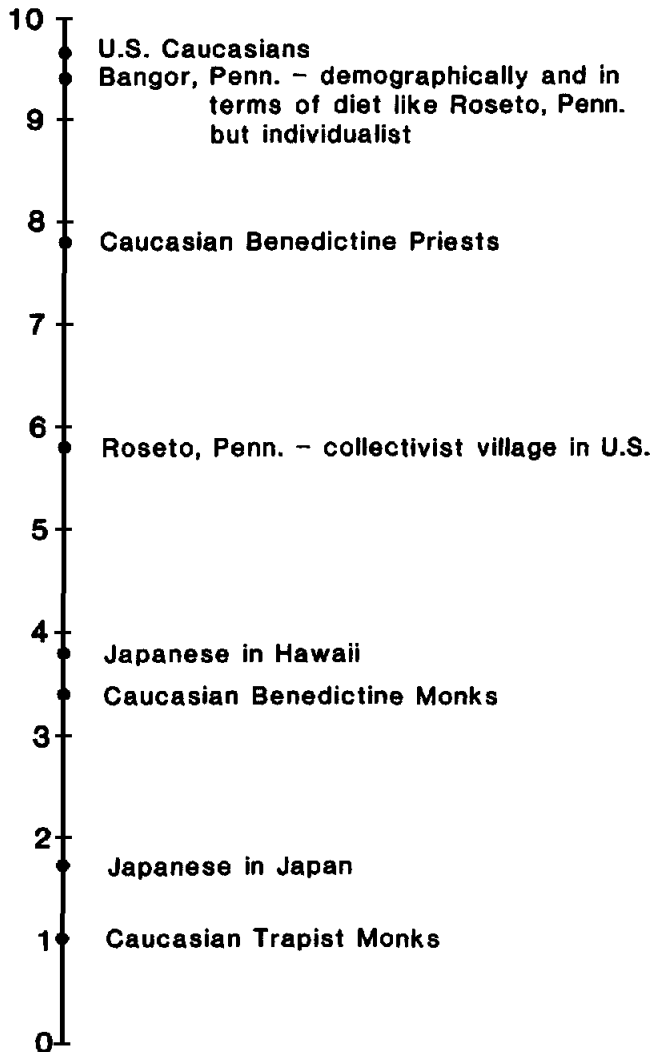


Figure 1. Heart attack rates per 1,000 inhabitants in selected samples (data from Henry and Stephens, 1977).

(Cohen & Hoberman, 1983; Cohen & Syme, 1985). Low levels of social support make a person more vulnerable to mental illness (Sarason, Sarason & Lindner, 1983) while high levels of social support are likely to protect a person's health (Gottlieb, 1983), make it more likely that a person will stop smoking, lose weight (Janis, 1983), and persist at a task under unfavorable conditions (Sarason, Levine, Basham, & Sarason, 1983).

The potential utility of the study of individualism–collectivism for psychology is suggested by Figure 1. The data were taken from Henry and Stephens (1977) and suggest that two major factors may be causally related to differences in heart attack rates. The first factor may be labeled *unpleasant life events*. Trappist monks, who have pledged not to talk for the rest of their lives and communicate only in writing, which is usually less emotional, have lower rates of heart attacks than do Benedictine monks, who do speak, or Benedictine priests, who are engaged in everyday life activities as teachers, counselors, and so on (Henry & Stephens, 1977).

The second factor is *social cohesion* and the probability that a person will receive *social support* when unpleasant life events occur. The contrast between the highly cohesive community of Italian immigrants who settled in Roseto, Pennsylvania, and the “control” community of Bangor, Pennsylvania, suggests that higher probabilities of social support when unpleasant life events occur may be negatively related to heart attack rates. Taking the two factors together, in the manner of a statistical interaction, we might conclude that in cultures where both unpleasant life events are likely to occur *and* there is a low probability of social support, the heart attack rates will be particularly high. Perhaps that is one way of explaining the large differences in heart attack rates between the Japanese in Japan and U.S. Caucasians and the rapid increase in the Japanese heart attack rate as Japan becomes more individualistic.

The Marmot and Syme (1976) data are especially interesting. Working with more than 3,000 Japanese Americans, they found that those who were acculturated had five times as many heart attacks as those who were unacculturated (that is, spoke Japanese at home, related with their children in the Japanese way), even though they statistically controlled for levels of cholesterol, exercise, smoking, and weight.

In addition to the data of Figure 1, the Henry and Stephens volume contains data on many other diseases. The argument is also consistent with other kinds of data. For example, a study by Frederichs, Chapman, Nourjah, and Maes (1984) of cardiovascular disease in Los Angeles shows that White and Black age- and sex-adjusted rates of mortality from all diseases, but particularly cardiovascular disease, are more than twice the rates of Asian Americans. Some of the differences may be due to diet and weight control. But it is likely that some of the difference is due to the higher level of collectivism among the Asians. In any case, this is a testable hypothesis.

The argument above suggests the relationships among life events, culture, and disease presented in Figure 2. *Unpleasant life events* (e.g., loss of loved ones) are hypothesized to have an effect on disease. Their impact is filtered by the individual's *psychobiological program*. That program is a function of *genetic factors* (e.g., predispositions to arousal) and *personality* (e.g., habitual patterns of behavior), which is a function of *culture* (e.g., individualism with emphasis on self-reliance and competition results in insecurity about coping; collectivism with emphasis on close parent–child relationships and social support results in less insecurity). Culture has implications for the *availability of social support* (e.g., close relatives are near; people take the time to provide social support). The psychosocial stimuli are perceived differently depending on the psychobiological program (a secure individual may be able to face them and see them as less threatening), an individual who has received *therapy* may be able to perceive them as less threatening, and depending on the level of threat there is more or less *stress*. Stress changes the psychobiological program (increases the threat levels that are filtered through) and is a *precursor of disease* that increases the probability of *disease*. Once a disease has set in, it is itself an unpleasant life event and changes the psychobiological program (e.g., decreases optimism).

Collectivism has the effect of emphasizing collective coping (Kashima & Triandis, 1986), which makes it easier for the individual to cope with unpleasant life events. Males in collectivist

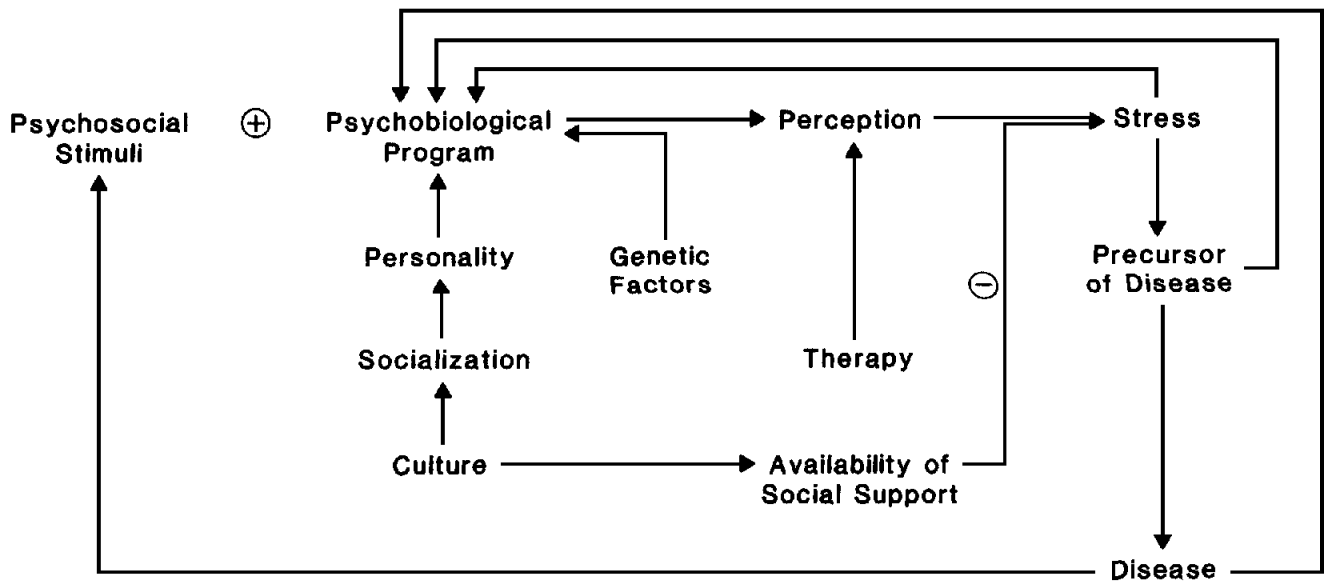


Figure 2. Adaptation of the Kagan and Levi (1974) model to illustrate the link of culture and disease.

cultures make internal attributions for failure less frequently than do males in individualist cultures (Chandler, Shama, & Wolf, 1983).

Collectivism is associated with emphasis on harmony (at least within the ingroup, which is the most frequent setting for social interaction), which reduces the stress level of everyday life (not talking has the same effect for Trappist monks). Collectivism also is associated with low levels of competition and hence less insecurity about being able to cope. One's position in the social order is determined by birth, age, sex, and so on, and hence one does not have to struggle to acquire a position. There is more stability in self-ingroup relationships, and that also reduces stress. The combination of more harmony and less insecurity may lead to low levels of stress. Of course, there are disadvantages to collectivism also, such as corrupt government officials, low levels of economic development, and the like. But these factors are more remote and less threatening to the individual and are less likely to cause high levels of stress. Thus, other things being equal (e.g., GNP per capita), the levels of disease in collectivist countries should be lower than those in individualist countries (see Figure 1).

Figure 2 is an adaptation of the cybernetic model of Kagan and Levi (1974). The emphasis of the model is on feedback and interactions. Cultures provide particular ways of viewing the environment (Triandis, 1972) so that the very same events (e.g., unemployment) may be perceived differently in different cultures. If the event is perceived as acceptable, normal, temporary, or expected it will have less stressful consequences than if it is perceived as unacceptable, unusual, chronic, or unexpected. Stress thus is a function of the way unpleasant life events are perceived.

Data taken from Henry and Stephens (1977) suggest further that those exposed to steady stress who receive social support have lower blood pressure levels that do not increase with age; those exposed to *variable* stress events and low social support

have somewhat higher levels of blood pressure that become increasingly higher with age.

High levels of stress may reduce immunity to disease (Ader, 1981). Henry and Stephens present data that the smoking-cancer links are stronger when people are emotionally upset than when they are not. A wide range of physical disease, from infections to complications in pregnancy, apparently are linked to reductions in the effectiveness of the immune system.

One may wonder if the fast pace of life in Western societies is responsible for the higher rates of heart attacks there than in collectivist cultures, such as Japan. But that is not the case. Levine and Bartlett (1984) show that the pace is faster in Japan than in the United States, yet the heart attack rates are lower in Japan.

Some aspects of individualism may be related to an even broader set of social ills. Naroll (1983) reviews data from many societies that suggest that when the primary group (which he calls the *moralnet*) is a normative reference group that provides strong social ties, emotional warmth, and prompt punishment; is culturally homogeneous, active in gossip, and very likely to shame deviant behavior; uses rituals frequently; has memorable myths, a plausible ideology, and badges and emblems of membership, then the positive social indicators outweigh the negative. The data he reviews suggest that strong moralnets are linked to low rates of homicide, suicide, crime, juvenile delinquency, divorce, child abuse, wife beating, and drug and alcohol abuse, and to good mental health. The negative correlates, however, include dissatisfaction with the family life (e.g., too many duties), low economic development, and low GNP per capita (see also Middleton, 1963).

Perhaps the major disadvantage of collectivism is in the political domain. Collectivists, particularly if they are centered on the family as their major collective, tend toward actions that benefit the family rather than the broad public good. Those in power act mostly to benefit themselves and their ingroup and

often disregard the public good. Extensive enrichment of the ingroup is usually associated with ineffective political behavior (Banfield, 1958).

In order to reach a better understanding of the meaning of the individualism–collectivism construct, Hui and Triandis (1986) asked social scientists from every continent to respond to a questionnaire “as if” they were individualists and collectivists. There was considerable agreement among the 49 psychologists and anthropologists who responded. The major themes associated with the conceptions that social scientists have about these concepts were used by Hui (1984) in constructing a scale that measures individualism and collectivism (INDCOL). Triandis et al. (1985) used that scale together with other scales and found that allocentric individuals in the United States are low on anomie, alienation, and loneliness; perceive that they receive more social support, of better quality; and value most cooperation, equality and honesty. Idiocentric individuals in the United States showed the opposite pattern and valued a comfortable life, competition, pleasure, and social recognition.

In evaluating the individualism–collectivism constructs, we must take into account the complexity of the suggested relationships. Neoindividualism is found mostly in north and west Europe, North America, and those cultures that were heavily influenced by northern Europe. Collectivism is found in most of the other regions of the world. Proto-individualism is still found in many regions that are undeveloped (e.g., the Arctic, deserts, jungles). Neoindividualism seems to favor long-lasting, democratic regimes and is reciprocally linked to affluence. However, there is a strong suspicion that some forms of social pathology (e.g., high crime rates) are also linked to extreme neoindividualism (Naroll, 1983). Collectivism may be associated with lower levels of stress, but if the economy of the country cannot support modern medicine the health advantages of low stress levels are lost, and deaths occur early. Extreme collectivism (e.g., the cultural revolution in China) seems undesirable by any criterion. Clearly, the picture is very complex, and it will take decades of research to unravel it.

The first step in the long journey suggested by this research program is to measure the constructs.

As mentioned earlier, Hui (1984) developed procedures based on attitude scales to measure the construct. Hui's best items and additional items that conformed to the theoretical understanding of the construct, as well as items suggested by research collaborators from several countries (see following), were then used in studies of convergent and discriminant validity (Triandis et al., 1985) and for cross-cultural comparisons (Triandis et al., 1986). The latter study tested mostly student samples from Chile, Costa Rica, Illinois, California, Hong Kong, Indonesia, India, Greece, The Netherlands, and France. In most cases, 100 students of each sex responded to 21 attitude items and 16 ratings of how much attention they paid to the views of various ingroup members, as well as two scenarios that measured concern for others. A factor analysis based on an N of 1,484 obtained four factors: (1) Self-Reliance With Hedonism (35% of common variance; mostly items such as those in Table 1, Factor 1, but without the competition items and with the hedonism items), (2) Separation From Ingroup (19% of variance; items 15 and 22 in Table 1, Factor 2), (3) Family Integrity (12% of variance; items reflecting close parent–subject relationships),

and (4) Interdependence With Sociability (11% of variance; items 17 and 18 of Table 1).

A discriminant function analysis attempted to get the maximum discrimination among the national samples. The most discriminating set of items was Family Integrity. The location of the national samples on that dimension was similar to the location of these countries on Hofstede's (1980) individualism–collectivism factor (rank-order correlation of .73, $p < .05$). The United States was low on Family Integrity, high on Interdependence With Sociability, high on Separation From Ingroups, and high on Self-Reliance With Hedonism. If we assume that the United States is a prototypical individualist culture, this may be the profile of individualism.

The Studies

Study 1: Measuring Idiocentrism in the United States

The present study was designed to probe the individualism construct more deeply and more appropriately for the United States by attempting to operationalize it. We used the themes extracted from the Hui and Triandis (1986) study to construct items. Specifically, the first facet was “sacrifice” (subordination of personal to ingroup goals; ingroup regulation of behavior) versus “hedonism” (doing what is satisfying in terms of personal goals; behavior regulated by the individual). The second was “extension of self to ingroup” versus “self as distinct entity from ingroup,” which also included themes of interdependence versus self-sufficiency. The third was “concern” for ingroup (ingroup is center of psychological field, ingroup harmony is important, common fate is salient) versus self-reliance and emotional distance from the ingroup.

Method

Subjects. Three hundred subjects from the psychology subject pool participated for course credit. Since the questionnaires were counter-balanced and they required more time than was available to the subjects, the N s for the various parts of the questionnaire are not equal. They are mentioned in the results section.

Instruments. One questionnaire consisted of 158 items. It included 63 items from the INDCOL (Hui, 1984) and the above-mentioned 95 theoretically constructed items. The 95 items must be considered as U.S. emics (culture-specific ideas). A second questionnaire included 145 items that provided additional measurements of the tendency toward allocentrism or idiocentrism, previously used and validated by Triandis et al. (1985) and 13 new items that subsequent discussion suggested. The 145 items included five scenarios, in which individuals were asked to imagine that they were in a particular social situation and must decide what to do. For example, in one of the scenarios the individual wanted to take a long trip, which various ingroups would find inconvenient. The subjects were asked to judge the extent they were likely to take the views of parents, spouses, close relations, close friends, acquaintances, neighbors, and coworkers into account in reaching a decision about taking such a trip.

A third questionnaire was an adaptation of the Kluckhohn and Strodtbeck (1961) instruments, and consisted of nine situations which could be responded to by (a) consulting an authority (lineal orientation), (b) consulting peers (collateral orientation), or (c) using the best information that one has and deciding on one's own (individualism).

Results

A note on the naming of factors. In this and the other studies discussed in this article, we used the most accurately descriptive label for each factor that we were able to devise. For example, if the items that had high loadings referred only to family, we used "family," but if they also included items that referred to other groups (e.g., coworkers) we used the more abstract term *ingroup*. We examined the factors of different analyses very closely, and if most of the highly loaded items were the same but some items that had high loadings on one factor did not have a high loading on another, we attempted to use slightly different names for the two factors. Thus, Subordination of Own Goals to Goals of Others is not the same factor as Subordination of Personal Goals to Ingroup Goals, suggesting that many of the items are the same but perhaps as many as a quarter of the high-loading items of one factor are not the same as the items of the other factor. The reader should look at the labels as suggestive of the content, not as if the factor is a reality (such as an individual's weight or height). Factors are summaries of observations comparable to the average of a distribution. Just like the statement "the average number of children in this sample is 1.8" does not imply that there are any families with that many children, so the existence of the exact factor in a given sample is only an approximation to the underlying reality.

The structure of idiocentrism in the United States. We had too many items (95 new items and 63 INDCOL items = 158) to be able to obtain a stable factor analytic solution, since stability requires more subjects than items (how many more is controversial; see, for example, Thurstone, 1947; Jöreskog & Sörbom, 1979; Harman, 1967). Therefore we devised a procedure for eliminating items. First, we noted the communalities of the items in the factor analysis of the 158×158 correlation matrix, based on 188 observations per variable. The communalities were the R^2 s, which means they reflected the extent each item was related to all other items. Since we were dealing mostly with idiocentric items, the communality is a measure of the extent the item dealt with the individualism construct. Second, we made sure that items that had high loadings on each of the three factors obtained in this factor analysis were selected for the next analysis. Thus, we selected 20 items from each of the three factors. These items were those with the highest communalities.

These 60 items were then subjected to a new factor analysis. This time the 60×60 matrix of correlations, based on 188 observations per variable, was subjected to a principal-axis factor analysis, with R^2 as communalities, and the factors were rotated by the varimax method. This factor analytic procedure was used in all the analyses to be reported in this article, unless otherwise noted. Table 1 presents the wording of the items that loaded highly on the three factors identified by that second analysis, as well as the percentage of total variance accounted for by each factor.

Inspection of Table 1 suggests that the first and third factors (Self-Reliance With Competition and Distance From Ingroups, respectively) are American emics, whereas the second (Concern for Ingroup) is etic (because the items are those that Hui developed using Hong Kong Chinese and U.S. subjects). Furthermore, we see that the items we selected fall into two of the three "theoretically" determined patterns: self-sufficiency and dis-

Table 1
Wording of Three Factors of Study 1

Factor 1: Self-Reliance With Competition (35.2% of total variance)

1. If the group is slowing me down, it is better to leave it and work alone.
2. To be superior a man must stand alone.
3. Winning is everything.
4. Only those who depend on themselves get ahead in life.
5. If you want something done right, you've got to do it yourself.
6. What happens to me is my own doing.
7. I feel winning is important in both work and games.
8. Success is the most important thing in life.
9. It annoys me when other people perform better than I do.
10. Doing your best isn't enough; it is important to win.
11. In most cases, to cooperate with someone whose ability is lower than oneself is not as desirable as doing the thing on one's own.
12. In the long run the only person you can count on is yourself.

Factor 2: Hui's INDCOL Scale—Concern for Ingroup (13.7% of total variance)

13. It is foolish to try to preserve resources for future generations. (Reversed)
14. People should not be expected to do anything for the community unless they are paid for it. (Reversed)
15. Even if a child won the Nobel Prize the parents should not feel honored in any way. (Reversed)
16. I would not let my parents use my car (if I had one), no matter whether they are good drivers or not. (Reversed)
17. I would help within my means if a relative told me that s(he) is in financial difficulty.
18. I like to live close to my friends.
19. The motto "sharing is both blessing and calamity" is still applicable even if one's friend is clumsy, dumb, and causing a lot of trouble.
20. When my colleagues tell me personal things about themselves, we are drawn closer together.
21. I would not share my ideas and newly acquired knowledge with my parents. (Reversed)
22. Children should not feel honored even if the father were highly praised and given an award by a government official for his contributions and service to the community. (Reversed)

Factor 3: Distance From Ingroups (12.0% of total variance)

23. I am not to blame if one of my family members fails.
24. My happiness is unrelated to the well-being of my coworkers.
25. My parents' opinions are not important in my choice of a spouse.
26. I am not to blame when one of my close friends fails.
27. My coworkers' opinions are not important in my choice of a spouse.
28. When a close friend of mine is successful, it does not really make me look better.
29. One need not worry about what the neighbors say about whom one should marry.

Note. INDCOL = Individualism–Collectivism.

tance from ingroup. The hedonism theme, however, which we had incorporated in our item generation, did not emerge as a separate factor. Finally, competition was present in the first factor, suggesting (consistent with Hsu's, 1983, view) that at least in the United States, self-reliant individualism is linked to competition.

One might expect that people who are allocentric will see themselves as more similar to their ingroups than people who

are idiocentric. To test that hypothesis, we asked the subjects to judge their similarity to various ingroups on various topics, for example, "How similar are your views to the views of your friends concerning the kind of education you should have?" The similarity judgments were sufficiently homogeneous after item-total correlations to allow construction of a Similarity to Ingroups scale (not shown in Table 1, to preserve space).

We also wondered if people who are allocentric might admit that they are paying a lot of attention to the views of their ingroups about many social issues. Again, we found that the attention items did form a scale: Attention to the Views of Ingroups (not shown in Table 1, to preserve space).

Kluckhohn-Strodtbeck items. The lineal, collateral, and individualistic judgments to the Kluckhohn-Strodtbeck (1961) situations were given in three ways: (a) What does the subject think is the best way and (b) second best way, and (c) what does the subject think "others in the community" think is the best way to deal with the particular situation (e.g., consult an authority, ask one's peers, decide on one's own). Factor analyses of the nine scores (a, b, and c for the lineal, collateral, and individualistic response of each item) showed that there were four factors, the first of which was Individualism-Collaterality, and this accounted for most (35%) of the common variance.

Second-order factor analyses: What is the "best" measure of idiocentrism in the United States. The highest loading items from each of the above-mentioned factor analyses were summed and entered into a second-order factor analysis, in which the factor scores from the first round of factor analyses became the new variables of the second-order factor analysis. However, since this required subjects who had answered all questionnaires, and most of our subjects had not finished answering all questionnaires, the *N* of this analysis is only 34. However, since factors were entered in the analysis we had only 14 variables, and the 14 variable/34 number of observations ratio is sufficient for stability. We entered factor scores for the three factors of Table 1 and also the Similarity to Ingroups and Attention to the Views of Ingroups scales, the Trip, Lottery, Investment, Help, and Feeling Honored if an Ingroup Member Wins the Nobel Prize scenarios, and the four items (what subject thinks is best and second best, for the individualist and collateral answers) of the Individualism-Collaterality factor from the Kluckhohn-Strodtbeck instrument. The Cronbach alpha reliabilities of these 14 variables ranged from .62 (lottery scenario) to .92 (attention to the views of others), with a median of .83.

The first factor of the second-order factor analysis may be called Subordination of Own Goals to the Goals of Others. It accounted for 37% of the total variance or 47% of the common variance and had high loadings on all of the scenario factors (except Feeling Honored if an Ingroup Member Wins the Nobel Prize) and the Attention to the Views of Others factor.

The second factor may be called Distance From Ingroups. It accounted for 20% of the total variance and 25% of the common variance. Scales such as Self-Reliance With Competition and Emotional Detachment had high loadings on this factor, while the Feel Honored if Ingroup Member Wins Nobel Prize scenario had a low loading.

The third factor may be called Individualism versus Collaterality, since it had positive and negative loadings on the scales,

which indicated that the first and second choices were collateral. It accounted for 17% of the total and 18% of the common variance.

The fourth factor accounted for 10% of the total variance and had a .81 loading on the Concern for Ingroup factor (the Hui INDCOL scale items) and a .55 loading on the Lending Money to Ingroup Members scenario factor. Given the disparity in the loadings of this doublet factor, it may be called simply Concern for Ingroup.

Discussion

These data suggest that U.S. idiocentrism is a multifaceted concept. The ingredients include more concern for one's own goals than the ingroup's goals, less attention to the views of ingroups, self-reliance with competition, detachment from ingroups, deciding on one's own rather than asking for the views of others, and less general concern for the ingroup. Of course, these particular themes emerged in U.S. data. It is not known if the same themes or some other combination of ideas would emerge in other cultures.

Furthermore, when ingroup and the individual are in conflict there is a general trend for subjects in individualistic cultures to anticipate that people will do their own thing rather than what is expected by the ingroup, and the perceived cause of that behavior is hedonism.

These results are in agreement with the major themes of American individualism identified by Bellah, Madsen, Sullivan, Swidler, and Tipton (1985). We did an informal content analysis of their book and extracted themes. We found that these themes were mostly present in our factors. Of course, they merged in different mixtures. Distance from ingroups (our Factor 3 in Study 1) is linked to their most frequent theme. Concern for ingroup (our Factor 2) was not strongly present in their work. But the correspondence is good enough, given the very different methods we have used, that it seems that we are looking at a similar content area.

So how should idiocentrism be measured in the United States? The results of Study 1 suggest that the items in Table 1 and the scenarios dealing with Trip, Lottery, and Help (see Triandis et al., 1985, for exact wording) seem to be the best measures.

Study 2: Probing Collectivism and Individualism: Japan, Puerto Rico, and Illinois

The previous study and our theoretical analyses suggested that people will relate to groups differently in collectivist societies, such as Japan and Puerto Rico (see Hofstede, 1980), than in individualist societies such as the United States (Illinois). Exactly what does this imply? We wondered if this implies that people in collectivist cultures perceive themselves as being more similar to their ingroups, as paying more attention to the views of their ingroups, and as being more concerned with the needs of their ingroups than do people in individualist cultures. Do people in collectivist cultures indicate more willingness to subordinate their personal needs to the needs of ingroups?

To explore these ideas and essentially find the limits of the collectivism and individualism constructs, we undertook a

Table 2
Percentage of Illinois and Japanese Samples Conforming to the Ingroup's Wishes or Evading a Confrontation in Response to Conflict Resolution Problems

When the other person is	Conforming		Evading	
	Japan	Illinois	Japan	Illinois
Parent	15***	44	19	26
Close friend	12***	31	34*	24
Close relative of own generation	4**	16	42	40
Coworker	9*	18	39	36
Neighbor	5	8	45	47
Person hardly known before the incident	2**	13	37***	22
Person from another country	1**	12	56	63

* $p < .05$. ** $p < .01$. *** $p < .001$.

study with students from Japan, Puerto Rico, and Illinois. Asai, in Japan, was also able to get data from an older sample (age 40+) consisting of parents and relatives of the students he sampled.

Method

Ninety-one Illinois, 97 Puerto Rican, and 150 Japanese students constituted the main samples. In addition, 106 older Japanese were studied, so that the total Japanese sample is 256. The samples were approximately equally male-female.

These samples responded to a questionnaire that measured allocentric tendencies in Illinois (Triandis et al., 1985), after double translation (Brislin, 1980) into Japanese and Spanish. The Japanese instrument included 144 items. Forty-eight of these required the subject to rate on a 5-point scale his or her perception of similarity to various ingroups (parents, relatives, close friends, coworkers, persons of the same nationality as self) with respect to several topics (for example, views on religion, tastes in music, political views). Forty-two items required the subject to rate the amount of attention he or she pays to the views of the ingroups mentioned, concerning various topics (for example, how to vote, where to shop, how to choose friends). Forty-seven items required the subject to indicate how he or she would behave in various situations. Previous work had shown these situations to reflect Concern for Ingroup, Distance of Self from Ingroup, and Subordination of Own Goals to Ingroup Goals (Triandis et al., 1985).

Finally, the Japanese and Illinois instruments included seven judgments concerning how the subject would deal with conflict with various ingroups: These conflict resolution problems depicted situations in which the individual wants to do one thing and the ingroup wants the individual to do another. The individual has the choice of three courses of action: (a) Do what the ingroup wants, (b) do what the self wants, and (c) evade the issue (avoid confrontation). Table 2 shows the percentages of each sample that gave the a and c responses. It is clear that the Illinois sample is more conforming than the Japanese, and although the Japanese avoid confrontation and take evasive action in the case of close friends or persons they have just met, they are not especially different from Americans in that tactic.

Preliminary analyses. An examination of the data revealed that the Japanese sample tended to use the middle of the scale, whereas the Illinois and Puerto Rico samples used the whole scale. This is consistent with previous findings (Zax & Takahashi, 1967). To eliminate this response set, we converted the data to standardized scores $Z = \frac{M - M}{SD}$

Since we had a total of 145 responses on 5-point scales, we assumed that the mean of the 145 $\times$ 256 Japanese ($N = 37,120$) responses should be the same as the mean of the 13,195 Illinois responses. We did most analyses with both the original scores and the standardized scores.

Results

Reliability. To conserve space, we report here mostly comparisons between the Illinois and the Japanese samples and mention the Puerto Rican data only when they differ from the Japanese. One way to judge the reliability of the data, and also the adequacy of the translations, is to correlate the 145 measures across the two cultures. We computed the correlation of the mean Japanese with the mean U.S. response to each of the 145 items. That correlation was .87. We also computed that correlation for each of the sections of the questionnaire. The correlation for the similarity judgments was .78, for the attention-to-the-views-of-their ingroup judgments it was .84, and for the scenarios it was .93. The best translations (or fewest cultural differences) appear to have been done where there was more context (the scenarios), as predicted by Werner and Campbell (1970).

The reliabilities of the subscales obtained from the various sections of the questionnaire were good (alphas of .78 to .96). A factor analysis that used the Similarity to Ingroups and Attention to the Views of Ingroups scales and each of the scenarios as separate variables showed the same factor patterns as those obtained by Triandis et al. (1985). That is, Subordination of Own Goals to Ingroup Goals, Concern for Ingroups, and Distance of Self from Ingroup (each accounting from 25% to 35% of the variance in each sample) was found in all three cultures.

Overall results. To get an overview of the results, consider that out of 138 ratings that were done by the Japanese and the Illinois samples, 19 showed the Japanese to be more collectivist, at $p < .01$ or better via analysis of variance (ANOVA) (7 of these involved friends, 2 involved comparisons of greater perceived similarity with the "average Japanese" as opposed to the "average American" of the Illinois sample, 5 involved feeling more honor if an ingroup member is honored, and 3 involved helping coworkers); 105 showed no differences; and 14 showed the Illinois means to be more collectivist (6 of these were due to the fact that the Japanese indicated that they pay very little attention to their neighbors, do not feel similar to their neighbors, and do not feel committed to help their neighbors, and 5 reflected Japanese disinterest in religion, which resulted in less similarity and less paying attention to religious views than was the case for Illinois sample).

Another overall result was that the Japanese older adults perceived themselves as more similar to their ingroups than did the Japanese younger adults via ANOVA, $F(1, 252) = 7.3$, $p < .01$, and the females saw themselves as more similar to their ingroups than did the males; there was also an interaction of the two, with older females particularly likely to see themselves as similar to their ingroups ($p < .04$).

The pattern of results shows no differences between the Japanese and Illinois samples for reactions to parents. Most of the cultural differences occurred for acquaintances, coworkers, and friends. Specifically, the Japanese indicated that they pay more attention to the views of coworkers than did the Illinois sample.

Specific results. On the whole, the similarity judgments were very similar across the three cultures. When there was a difference (e.g., Japanese seeing themselves more similar to the average fellow countryman than the Americans did, which was expected from the characteristics of the societies, that is, the greater homogeneity of Japan) it could not be considered a difference relevant to collectivism-individualism.

Similarly, the hypothesis that collectivists will see themselves always as more under the influence of ingroups must be rejected. In very specific cases it was supported, such as the Japanese paying more attention to the views of their coworkers than did the Illinois sample "when deciding where to shop and what to buy," "when choosing an intimate friend (including a spouse)," and "when deciding what kind of work to do." So on the whole there were no cultural differences, but specific items, such as the importance of the workgroups, did show the expected results.

The hypothesis that in collectivist cultures people will report that they show more concern for their ingroup members (corresponding to Factor 2 in the Triandis et al., 1985, study) was supported in only 2 out of 11 scenarios for the Japanese, and both the Illinois and the Puerto Rico samples showed the opposite pattern, that is, more concern for ingroup than Japan showed.

The hypothesis that people in collectivist cultures will subordinate their needs to the needs of their ingroups more than those in individualist cultures will (corresponding to Factor 1 in the Triandis et al., 1985, study) received mixed support. In Japan the hypothesis was supported in the case of 7 out of 18 tests, and if the probabilities are combined, via Stouffer's (1949) test, that is significant at $p < .001$. But the Puerto Ricans did not show the same patterns. Thus it does not seem to be a general collectivist pattern.

The hypothesis that people in collectivist cultures will show less distance from their ingroups was supported for 6 out of 13 of the items for the Japanese, but the Puerto Ricans were like the Illinois sample. The combined probability supports the hypothesis for the Japanese only, at $p < .001$.

Discussion

The global characterization of collectivism is inaccurate, at least when college students are studied. People in collectivist cultures do *not* necessarily conform more, feel more similar to others, pay more attention to the views of others, and/or uniformly subordinate their goals to the goals of others. Such responses are much more selective. Thus, we see the Japanese paying attention to the views of coworkers and friends more than the Illinois sample, but the same phenomenon was not observed in Puerto Rico. Such findings are consistent with those of Hui (1984), who identified different kinds of collectivists: family, coworkers, friend, neighbor, and so on. One may be a collectivist in relation to one ingroup but not in relation to other groups.

The Japanese feel honored when their ingroups are honored and pay attention to the views of some, but not all, ingroups; they subordinate their goals to the goals of some ingroups, but they do not conform much.

The Puerto Rican students, in Lucca's subjective judgment,

are on the individualistic side of the neutral point on the individualism-collectivism dimension. That may explain why they seem so close to the Illinois sample. However, on some items they behaved more like individualists than such an interpretation would allow. A discussion of such deviations from expectation will help us understand collectivism better.

The higher rates of paying attention to the view of others found in Illinois relative to Puerto Rico requires a comment. One way to interpret this result is that in collectivist cultures such as Puerto Rico, one interacts mostly with ingroup members who are either relatives, friends of relatives, or friends of friends. Since such relationships are determined for the subject (i.e., one is born in a family and the family's friends become one's friends) rather than by the subject, one does not have to develop high skills in cultivating relationships.

Paying attention to the views of others and conforming to them are techniques for gaining acceptance by others. Such techniques are more important in an individualistic society where one's ingroups are formed by the individual. This interpretation is consistent also with the findings of Bond and Cheung (1983) who studied the spontaneous self-concepts of college students in Japan, Hong Kong, and the United States. They found, with the Twenty Statements Test, that the self-concepts of the U.S. sample had more "social content" than did the self-concepts of the Far Eastern samples.

The very same point can be made by examining in more detail the results of Triandis et al. (1986). While on "Family Integrity" the Asians and Latin Americans were highly collectivist and the Europeans and North Americans were highly individualistic, on "Interdependence and Sociability" that pattern was not observed. In fact, the highest score on interdependence was obtained from the Illinois females!

Thus, it seems appropriate to change our view of collectivism. It is not that people are less sociable in the individualistic countries—in fact it seems that they are more sociable in the individualistic countries than in the collectivist because they have to work hard to get into and remain in their ingroups.

Lucca found the Puerto Rican sample's nonattention to the views of others surprising, because she felt that in Puerto Rico the "el qué dirán" (what will others say about one) is very strong. Perhaps our choice of behaviors in this study was not optimal. A distinction is needed between behavior that is proscribed, in that what others will say about one is crucial, and behavior that is prescribed in different degrees by others. The items we used on the Attention scenarios (paying attention to the views of others on how to vote, on religion, on shopping, on choosing a friend, on what kind of work to do, on what music to listen to, and on what kind of education to have) are behaviors about which cultures may prescribe very little. In further research, other behaviors (e.g., who to marry) about which cultures both proscribe and prescribe should be used.

Japan is supposed to be on the collectivism side of the individualism dimension in Hofstede's (1980) data, with a score of 46 (the U.S. score was 91). Thus, Japan may be more on the collectivist side of the cultural dimension than Puerto Rico, and this is why we did obtain some support for the hypotheses in Japan, though the support was limited, specific, and suggestive of different kinds of collectivism.

The data of Table 2 are informative in several ways and con-

sistent with the interpretation that conformity is *not* high in collectivist cultures. First, note that the Japanese are less conforming than are the Illinois subjects. This is consistent with results obtained with the Asch paradigm in Japan and the United States. Frager (1970), using the Asch approach, found conformity rates of 25% in Japan, which is lower than the usual American rate of about one-third. Also, the Japanese showed much anticonformity in Frager's study. Second, note the difference in the percentages of conformity to parent and person from another country. The percentages in the Japanese data show a 15:1 ratio; in the American data, a 4:1 ratio. This is consistent with the argument, presented by Triandis (1972), that in collectivist cultures the *difference* in the behavior toward ingroup and outgroup members is very large, whereas in individualist cultures it is greatly attenuated. A closer look at the Japanese data in Table 2 suggests that the Japanese have an "inner ingroup" (parent, close friend), an "outer ingroup" (close relative, coworker, neighbor), and an outgroup (person hardly known, person from another country), whereas the Illinois sample has a wider inner ingroup (parent, close friend, close relative, coworker), a small "outer ingroup" (neighbors), and an "outgroup" that is not especially different from the "outer ingroup." It seems desirable for social psychologists to study more intensively, in the future, the social distances of individuals from a variety of natural groups in their social environment.

Finally, the rejection of many of the hypotheses of this study raises the question whether students in Puerto Rico and Japan are really allocentric. As mentioned earlier, Lucca judges the Puerto Ricans to be "on the individualist side of the mid-point." Asai reports that there is a large gap between students and the older generation (which we found in the similarity judgments). Japanese students go through a rather regimented and highly competitive educational system until they are admitted into university. Once they are in university, for the first time in their lives, they can do "their own thing," and many do. This freedom lasts a few years, but once they join the workforce they go back to collectivism. Thus, students may be a particularly inappropriate sample for studies of Japanese collectivism, much as they are inappropriate for certain kinds of studies on other topics of social psychology (Sears, 1986).

In any event, the data of this study tell us to restrict and sharpen our definition of collectivism. We are not dealing with a broad construct where similarity to all ingroups, attention to the view of all ingroups, or concern with the needs of all ingroups is involved. The data suggest that we must consider each ingroup and each domain of social behavior separately, and collectivism defined as subordination to the ingroup's norms, needs, views, and emotional closeness to ingroups is very specific to ingroup and to domain. Collectivism takes different forms, such as the greater sense of doing one's duty or not disrupting interpersonal relationships within the ingroup, that are specific to each culture.

Study 3: Replication of Relationships of Allocentrism to Social Support and Idiocentrism to Loneliness in Puerto Rico and Illinois

The first study indicated which items might be most useful in measuring U.S. idiocentrism. In addition, the study by Tri-

andis et al. (1985) suggested that allocentric persons in the United States tend to perceive that they receive more and a better quality of social support, whereas idiocentric individuals tend to report that they are lonely. Are these findings relatively robust, so that they might be obtained in another culture? Puerto Rico is a good setting to answer this question for two reasons. First, it is a Latin culture and most Latin cultures have been found to be collectivist (Hofstede, 1980). Second, it is not so drastically different from the United States that it differs in every conceivable way, so that if the results show that one cannot replicate the U.S. findings this nonconfirmation of expectations could be explained by many other variables.

The items used by Triandis et al. (1985) were translated into Spanish and translated back into English, according to the method of double translation (Brislin, 1980). Lucca examined the items for appropriateness in Puerto Rico. She felt that the highest loading items of the Triandis et al. (1985) study were meaningful in Puerto Rico.

A total of 72 items that measured aspects of idiocentrism-allocentrism were used. The design called for 100 subjects (50 men and 50 women) in each culture. We were able to get complete data from 97 subjects from the University of Puerto Rico (who also responded to many of the items used in Study 2—that data is reported under Study 2) and 99 from the University of Illinois.

In addition to responding to the 72 items that measured allocentrism (Triandis et al., 1985), the subjects from Illinois and Puerto Rico responded to double-translated versions of the Social Support Questionnaire developed by Sarason, Levine, Basham, and Sarason (1983) and validated by Sarason, Sarason, and Lindner (1983) and the Loneliness scale of Schmidt and Sermat (1983).

Results

The first 21 items were factor analyzed separately, (a) from both the other items that were used in that questionnaire and (b) for each of the cultural groups. The Puerto Rico factors were Affiliation (42.4% of common variance; high loadings on "I enjoy meeting and talking to my neighbors everyday," "What I look forward to in a job is a friendly group of co-workers," etc.), Autonomy (31%; "One should live one's life independently of others," "I tend to do my own thing, and most people in my family do the same"), and Distance of Self from Ingroup (26.7%; see Table 1, Factor 3). The Illinois factors were Self-Reliance With Competition (45.3% of common variance; see Table 1, Factor 1), Distance of Self From Ingroup (29.1%; see Table 1, Factor 3), and Kin-Interdependence (25.6%; see kin-related items in Table 1, Factor 2). In addition, the various scenarios (which involved family members in situations where the subject had to act according to own or a family member's goals) formed their own factors.

To test the hypothesis that allocentric subjects would be high in reported social support and idiocentrics high in loneliness, we correlated each subject's responses to the various factors (forming factor scores consisting of the highest loading items) and the responses to the Social Support and the Loneliness scales.

We obtained four scores from the Social Support Questionnaire: (a) number of relatives mentioned as providing support

(SSR), (b) number of nonrelatives (usually friends) mentioned (SSnR), (c) satisfaction with social support received (SSS), and (d) total social support received (SST). We found that the correlations between Social Support and Loneliness scores were similar in Illinois and Puerto Rico, but the size of the correlations was attenuated in Puerto Rico. For example, SSR correlated $-.48$ ($p < .001$) with Loneliness in Illinois but only $-.23$ ($p < .05$) in Puerto Rico; SSnR correlated with Loneliness $-.43$ ($p < .001$) in Illinois and $-.16$ (NS) in Puerto Rico; SSS correlated $-.48$ ($p < .001$) in Illinois and $-.31$ ($p < .01$) in Puerto Rico.

Since the data for Puerto Rico and Illinois behaved fairly similarly we combined them. Those who responded positively to the Trip and Lottery scenarios, which measure allocentrism, reported receiving greater SSR, $r = .36$ ($p < .001$) and $.32$ ($p < .001$), respectively. Both the SSnR and the SSS correlated with the Lottery scenario, $r = .36$ ($p < .001$) and $.41$ ($p < .001$), respectively.

While there were no cultural differences on SSR, for SSnR Illinois was higher than Puerto Rico ($p < .001$). Women reported that they received more social support than men (on SST) and had higher SSS scores in both Puerto Rico and Illinois ($p < .02$).

In Illinois, Subordination of Own Goals to the Goals of the Family correlated $-.36$ ($p < .001$) with Loneliness. Allocentric responses to the Lottery scenario correlated $-.39$ ($p < .001$) with Loneliness.

In Puerto Rico, Affiliation correlated with Loneliness $-.29$ ($p < .01$). Those who were high in Distance From Ingroups were more lonely, $r = .34$ ($p < .01$). The corresponding Illinois correlation was $.21$ ($p < .03$).

When the data from the two cultures were combined, Trip correlated with Loneliness $-.24$ ($p < .001$) and Lottery with Loneliness $-.34$ ($p < .001$).

Discussion

Replicating results reported by Triandis et al. (1985), allocentrism correlated with social support positively and with loneliness negatively. The same pattern occurred in Illinois and Puerto Rico, though in the latter some of the relationships were attenuated. The fact that the allocentrism measures in the two cultures correlated with outside variables similarly suggests that they do share a common core of meaning.

Though there is similarity between the Distance of Self From Ingroup factors obtained in Puerto Rico and Illinois, the coefficient of congruence (.69) is not as high as it should be, probably because the Cronbach alpha reliability of the factor in Illinois is lower (.65) than it is in Puerto Rico (.90).

The most important factor in Illinois, accounting for 45% of the common variance, was Self-Reliance With Competition, which is what one would expect in an individualistic culture. The most important factor in Puerto Rico was Affiliation (38% of variance), which is what one might expect in a collectivist culture. The Self-Reliance factor from Illinois had a coefficient of congruence of .77 with the Autonomy factor from Puerto Rico.

The major cultural difference was that the Illinois factor had a high loading on the item reflecting competition. The competition item did not have a high loading in Puerto Rico. This

seems to be an important cultural difference. As Hsu (1983) has argued, in individualist cultures, such as the United States, self-reliance is often associated with competition, which is not the case in collectivist cultures. In collectivist cultures the ingroup competes with outgroups, but people compete as ingroup members rather than as individuals.

General Discussion

The collectivism and individualism constructs reflect patterns of information processing and evaluating events in the social environment that distinguish most traditional, complex cultures from either simple or industrial, complex cultures. The major themes of collectivism are self-definition as part of group(s), subordination of personal goals to ingroup goals, concern for the integrity of the ingroup, and intense emotional attachment to the group. The major themes of individualism are a self-definition as an entity that is distinct and separate from group(s), emphasis on personal goals even if pursuit of such goals inconveniences the ingroup, and less concern and emotional attachment to the ingroups.

Several themes, such as self-reliance, achievement, hedonism, competition, and interdependence change their meanings in the context of the two kinds of cultures. Self-reliance for the individualistic cultures implies freedom to do one's own thing and also competition with others. Self-reliance for the collectivist cultures implies not being a burden on the ingroup, and competition is unrelated to it. Competition in collectivist cultures is among ingroups, not among individuals.

In individualistic cultures it is individuals who achieve; in collectivist cultures, groups achieve. People feel proud of their achievements and their success in personal competition in the individualist cultures, and people feel proud of their group's achievement and the success of their groups in the collectivist cultures. Interdependence is seen in utilitarian/social exchange terms in the individualist and in terms of duty, obligation, and morality in the collectivist cultures.

This picture is oversimplified, because it implies an opposition between individualism and collectivism. Our factor analyses suggested, instead, that these are orthogonal constructs. At the ecological level Triandis et al. (1986) found four factors.

1. Family Integrity (good and lasting relationships between parents and children) emerged as the most important factor discriminating the cultures of that study. It rank-order correlated $.73$ ($p < .01$, based on nine cultures) with Hofstede's (1980) scores on collectivism-individualism.

2. Interdependence With Sociability (help own family when in need; live close to friends; frequent contacts) was another factor that conceptually fits collectivism but empirically did not correlate with Hofstede's construct. In fact, the highest score on this factor was obtained by Illinois females, the lowest in Greece.

3. On Separation From Ingroups, which is conceptually related to individualism, the Illinois female subjects were high and the Indian, Greek, and Hong Kong samples were low. This factor reflects emotional detachment from ingroups.

4. Self-Reliance With Hedonism is clearly individualistic, with the U.S. samples high, but not as high as the Chileans, and the Indonesians and Indians low.

In short, the empirical studies suggest that we need to consider individualism and collectivism as multidimensional constructs.

When we analyze data within culture we find factors emerging that are similar to those that emerge across cultures. In the present study we conducted within-culture factor analyses. These analyses reflect more faithfully the responses of the subjects in the particular samples. However, they increase the complexity of the findings. The U.S. subjects of Study 1 gave three factors. The first is Self Reliance With Competition and is a culture-specific factor that is similar to Self-Reliance With Hedonism from the ecological analysis, but is clearly different in that the competition items loaded together with self-reliance. The second factor is Concern for Ingroup, with items from both the ecological Interdependence With Sociability and negative loadings on items of the ecological Separation From Ingroups factor. The third factor is Distance From Ingroups, a factor that does not emerge across cultures.

In Study 2 the factor analyses carried out with data from Japan and Illinois provided very similar factors. They were named Subordination of Own Goals to Ingroup Goals, Concern for Ingroups, and Distance of Self From Ingroups. The first is more abstract than the ecological factors, but the Concern for Ingroups factor again is similar to the Interdependence With Sociability and is negatively related to the Separation From Ingroups ecological factors. Finally, the Distance of Self From Ingroups factor has much in common with the third factor of Study 1, suggesting that Japanese students are sufficiently individualistic to provide a factor that looks much like a U.S. individualistic factor.

In Study 3, Puerto Rico provided a classic collectivist factor (Affiliation), a classic individualist factor orthogonal to the collectivist (Autonomy), and a Distance of Self From Ingroup factor that was also found in Japan and the United States. The U.S. sample of Study 3 replicated the factors of the U.S. sample of Study 1.

In summary, the main ecological factors emerge also in the factor analyses of the within-culture data. But there are in addition culture-specific factors that do not appear in the ecological analyses.

One point can be made quite generally: In both the ecological and the within-culture analyses and those done in all the cultures so far, the emphases on individualistic and collectivist themes are orthogonal. Furthermore, collectivism depends very much on which ingroup is present, in what context (e.g., lottery, trip), and what behavior (e.g., paying attention to the views of others, feelings similar to others, competing with others) was studied.

Although the analyses presented here suggest considerable complexity in the subjects' conceptions of behavior toward members of various natural groups, it is important to emphasize that whether individualism-collectivism is one dimension or a multidimensional construct depends on the context of the study. If one studies a broad range of values (as did Hofstede, 1980) then in that context individualism-collectivism is one dimension. If one focuses only on self-ingroup relationships (as we did in the present studies), then a multidimensional structure emerges. In short, it depends on the distance between the observer and the data. Just as when observing a town from a

satellite one may gain the impression of a line spread along a highway whereas when looking at the town from a close distance one can see other streets and neighborhoods that are far from the highway, so in this case one observes more complexity from a closer vantage point.

Finally, the replication of the findings of Triandis et al. (1985) that allocentric persons report more social support and perceive a better quality of such support while idiocentric persons report being more lonely suggests that the constructs may have relevance for our understanding of the relationship of culture and health. It seems plausible (see Cohen and Syme, 1985) that, other things being equal, allocentric individuals may have better health than idiocentric individuals. If GNP per capita is kept constant (and that is essential because it correlates about .8 with individualism [see Hofstede, 1980; Triandis, 1987]) people in collectivist cultures should show fewer symptoms of stress and smaller rates of stress-related diseases (e.g., cardiovascular death rates) than people in individualist cultures. That expectation seems supported by the data reported by Frederichs et al. (1984).

In conclusion, this article has provided an analysis of the constructs collectivism and individualism and the hypotheses concerning the way these constructs are linked to social phenomena, social behavior, and health. It has presented, also, procedures for the measurement of the constructs. It has shown that some of the simpler ideas about what collectivism means must be discarded and that a more complex understanding of the construct is possible. Finally, it has shown that within culture, allocentric individuals experience more social support and a better quality of support than do idiocentric individuals, who tend to report that they are lonely more than allocentric persons do. Thus, cultural and personality differences exist in the way self and ingroup are related. This is a first step toward a better understanding of how culture affects social behavior.

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